

Can Economic Nationalism Impact Industrial Policy? Experimental Evidence from Bipartisan US Industrial Policy

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11 February 2026

Abstract

The United States and other states around the world are enacting major industrial policies, including support for semiconductors, electric vehicles, and green energy transitions. These policies involve subsidies and domestic content requirements that generate meaningful domestic distributional effects and are often motivated by generating quality jobs for residents. At the same time, an overriding message for contemporary industry policy has been economic nationalism. How does this non-material factor coexist with what we know about the material determinants of preferences for industrial policy? In an original survey experiment conducted in the US during the Biden administration, we prime economic nationalism via anti-China rhetoric on support for semiconductor policy. Referencing China increases support for US semiconductor policy – across party lines. That anti-China sentiment can increase support for industrial policy, at least in some instances, suggests that Democrats and Republicans have shared interests in using China to motivate their preferred policies, reinforcing bipartisanship in economic nationalism in the 21st century.

Keywords: Industrial policy; United States; Semiconductor; Economic Nationalism; Subsidies; Trade preferences

Acknowledgements: For discussion and support, we thank Jenna Salzman, Daron Shaw, Pat McDonald, and the Civitas Institute at the University of Texas at Austin.

Introduction

Republicans in recent years have embraced the globalization backlash, questioning whether deeper global economic integration is indeed the correct goal for the United States. Although the Biden administration in many ways represented a rejection of the previous Trump administration and a rollback of its policies, tariffs on China remained in place. Biden's signature legislative successes, including the US CHIPS Act, the Bipartisan Infrastructure Law, and the Inflation Reduction Act (IRA), contained elements of trade protection, including numerous "Buy American" provisions, as well as subsidies for new producers. The Biden administration thus provides ample evidence that globalization backlash, and industrial policy in particular, is bipartisan – all the more notable in an era in which very few issues garner bipartisan support. Trade protectionism and industrial policy allow political parties to position themselves as a pro-manufacturing, in an attempt to woo blue-collar workers (Osgood 2023).

In this article, we examine a different mechanism that speaks to the bipartisan embrace of anti-trade positions and industrial policy, though one that is not inconsistent with the material economic logic of trade protectionism. Economic nationalism is a through-line in contemporary anti-trade policy in the United States especially. China's entry to the World Trade Organization (WTO) in 2001 and the increased competitiveness of the Chinese economy since has fed into anti-China rhetoric. If both parties expect economic nationalism to appeal to their constituencies, then we should see evidence of anti-China rhetoric by not just Republicans but also Democrats. Anecdotal evidence of anti-China rhetoric during the Biden administration, and from Biden himself, is abundant. Press releases targeted unfair Chinese trade practices, and the Biden administration increased preexisting tariffs from 25% to 50% and added a number of non-tariff barriers.¹ A 2024 Rose Garden speech in which Biden announced new Chinese tariffs is representative of the national rhetoric around trade with China; it is worth quoting at length.

"For years, the Chinese government has poured state money into Chinese companies across a whole range of industries: steel and aluminum, semiconductors, electric vehicles, solar panels — the industries of the future — and even critical health equipment, like gloves and masks. China heavily subsidized all these products, pushing Chinese companies to produce far more than the rest of the world can absorb. And then dumping the excess products onto the market at unfairly low prices, driving other manufacturers around the world out of business."²

Does economic nationalism shape US voters' preferences over industrial policy? If not, then we would have reason to believe that Democrats' use of anti-China rhetoric to justify trade protection is incidental to the material factors that generate protectionist demands. If

¹ <https://bidenwhitehouse.archives.gov/briefing-room/statements-releases/2024/05/16/fact-sheet-biden-harris-administration-takes-action-to-strengthen-american-solar-manufacturing-and-protect-manufacturers-and-workers-from-chinas-unfair-trade-practices/>

² <https://bidenwhitehouse.archives.gov/briefing-room/speeches-remarks/2024/05/14/remarks-by-president-biden-remarks-by-president-biden-on-his-actions-to-protect-american-workers-and-businesses-from-chinas-unfair-trade-practices/>

so, we have evidence not only that both Republicans and Democrats are using anti-China rhetoric, but that such rhetoric is effective in moving preferences.

To adjudicate, we conducted survey experiments on a nationally representative sample during the Biden administration. We leverage Biden’s signature industrial policy legislation, the US CHIPS Act, which has been justified as a job-creating policy as well as a means to counter China. This legislation was bipartisan and focused on an emerging industry, semiconductors, that has not been particularly partisan. We find that anti-China messaging causes increased support, both alone and in combination with jobs messaging. Moreover, these effects are driven by increases in *Republican* support. That anti-China messaging increased support for what was nonetheless a Biden-era accomplishment shows the cross-partisan appeal of economic nationalism.

Our results point to the effectiveness of anti-China messaging in what might be a likely case, given *ex ante* bipartisan openness to semiconductor industrial policy.³ That anti-China messaging can, when effective, move respondents to support industrial policy reinforces the usefulness to protectionist coalitions of embedding preferences in industrial policy and other outlets conducive to reactionary economic nationalism, as opposed to the more opaque and drawn-out fights encountered in traditional trade treaty negotiations.

Further, that anti-China sentiment can increase support for protectionist policy, at least in some instances, suggests Democrats and Republicans have shared interests in using China to motivate their preferred policies. In that way, our Biden-era results reinforce that economic nationalism and associated trade protectionism have bipartisan appeal in an era otherwise marked by extreme polarization.

In what follows, we discuss trade backlash and the concomitant renewal of industrial policy, introduce the setting and survey design, present results, and conclude by emphasizing the implications of the cocktail of industrial policy, trade protection, broader globalization backlash, and economic nationalism that characterizes US policy in the early 21st century.

Globalization and Industrial Policy

Globalization backlash in general, and trade backlash in particular, is well-documented (Walter 2021). This backlash in the United States predates the “China Shock.” Goldstein and Gulotty (2021) provide a historical overview of how early US support for the creation and maintenance of the global trade system eroded over time. The initial emphasis on supporting exporters alienated domestic labor, and the lack of institutions to support

³ In the appendix we present results that messaging primes have null effects on support for solar panel policy linked to the Biden era Inflation Reduction Act (IRA). Pre-existing preferences over green transition policies are likely entrenched in fundamentally different contemporary partisan positions on climate issues (Bumann 2021). That none of the messaging primes we offered – on China, jobs, or environment – moved preferences suggests limits to not only economic nationalism but other messages on changing status quo preferences on an *ex ante* polarizing policy.

workers through “embedded liberalism” contributed to growing animosity toward global trade. While Goldstein and Gulotty (2021) focuses on declining support for the GATT/WTO regime, declining support also anticipates many of the policy changes seen during both the first and second Trump administrations.

The globalization backlash, as well as the rise of populism, is partially attributed to non-material, sociotropic factors (Mansfield and Mutz 2009) and the efforts of political elites to capitalize on those factors (Guisinger 2009). Ballard-Rosa et al (2024) find compelling evidence that elite messages and perceptions of unfair trade practices have major implications for trade preferences in the United States. At the same time, the US government has stepped back from negotiating and signing formal treaty-based trade agreements. This is not only a Trump phenomenon; while in the Trump era the rhetoric is around “trade deals,” in the Biden era the US Trade Representative saw the goal as “creating new and innovative trade arrangements.”⁴ Thus, the inputs into individual-level trade preferences, and the outputs in terms of national-level trade policy, both appear to be evolving.

We enter the story here, to question economic preferences in this more complex context. Industrial policy has seen a reemergence in the academic literature (Juhász et al 2024) and in policy circles. US politicians now mention industrial policy by name, and broad bipartisan constituencies see it an appropriate means to grow US national power.

Industrial policy can be motivated beyond economic factors. Industrial policy can be used to support goals such as environmental protection (Allen et al 2021; Rodrik 2014) or for securing access to resources such as critical minerals (Allan and Nahm 2025). Broadly, there is an increasing use of industrial policy either for or under the guise of national security (Weiss 2014; Farrell and Newman 2019; Wijaya, Trissia, and Kanishka Jayasuriya 2024). A national security framing can limit the usefulness to firms of lobbying against trade protectionism or export restrictions (Danzman 2025).

We argue that the framing of industrial policy for national security, or economic nationalism more broadly, can shape mass politics. Like other globalization backlash-consistent policies, industrial policy can further economic nationalism through a menu of policies ranging from the promotion of domestic industries to trade barriers (de Bolle 2025). We build on recent work examining the influence of nationalism on industrial policy (Donnelly 2024) by presenting new experimental results on a landmark industrial policy in the United States.

Setting: Biden-era industrial policy

Two defining pieces of legislation during the Biden administration are archetypes of the contemporary resurgences of industrial policy in the US and the world. The 2021 *Creating Helpful Incentives to Produce Semiconductors (CHIPS) for America Act* and the 2022

⁴ E.g. <https://ustr.gov/about-us/policy-offices/press-office/press-releases/2024/march/ustr-releases-president-bidens-2024-trade-policy-agenda-and-2023-annual-report#:~:text=The%20Office%20of%20the%20United%20States%20Trade%20Representative%20today%20released,with%20our%20allies%20and%20partners:>

US Inflation Reduction Act (IRA) are national-level policies that redirect monetary and other resources to promote some industries over others, pursue goals consistent with a mercantilist view of the world, and invoke broadly defined national security interests. Also embedded within each are protectionist trade policies, exemplifying how industrial policy has become a vehicle for trade policy in the contemporary era.

In 2021, the US Congress enacted the CHIPS Act, which had bipartisan support. At the time, the bipartisan nature of this major legislation stood out among deeply polarized policy priorities and combative interpersonal partisan politics. The CHIPS Act combined multiple proposed bills to subsidize both the production and research and development of semiconductors in the United States (Sutter et al. 2023). It was designed to have several intended impacts on economic integration. In particular, it directly incentivized the reshoring of semiconductor manufacturing. While Taiwan has dominated semiconductor manufacturing, China's investments in and subsequent growth in the industry reinforced political motivations to invest at home. The CHIPS Act restricted new investments in China and a limited number of other "countries of concern" for a period of 10 years. As a result, Luo and Van Assche (2023) identify this legislation as marking a shift from economic liberalism toward techno-nationalism—a strategy that includes not only subsidies but also export controls designed to decouple or de-risk supply chains from China.

In 2022, the *US Inflation Reduction Act (IRA)* was passed along partisan lines, and its industrial policy elements focused on promoting the green transition. The IRA's environmental goals are deeply partisan in the current era, and the party-line vote coincides with the subsequent Trump administration's immediate attention to rolling back the IRA. While our primary attention in this study is on semiconductors in the context of the CHIPS Act, we replicated survey experiments on solar panels in the context of the IRA. Given the ex ante partisan lock-in on this particular industrial policy, it is perhaps unsurprising that we find null results for messaging primes (see appendix for results). We therefore focus analysis on the less partisan issue of supporting semiconductor manufacturing, for which we expect varying justifications to be more likely to move public preferences.

Research Design

Our aim is to examine how different frames shape US public support for industrial policies and the protectionism inherent in them, with specific emphasis on the role of anti-China economic nationalism. We deployed survey experiments in a nationally representative Civitas/YouGov survey of 1200 US citizens, fielded from 5-11 March 2024 (during the Biden administration, while he was the presumptive Democratic candidate for the 2024 election). Respondents were matched to a sampling frame incorporating gender, age, race, and education, based on the American Community Survey (ACS) and other supplements that take into account factors such as 2020 US presidential vote.

We embedded experiments drawing on the content of the CHIPS Act. Our key economic nationalism treatment primes reduced dependence on China. Given the rhetoric used around the enactment of the CHIPS Act, not to mention well-established findings from various literatures, we also prime job creation.

All respondents received the information: “The United States Congress has passed legislation encouraging investment in the semiconductor industry, especially chip manufacturing.” A control group did not receive further information, whereas three treatment groups received messaging on China, jobs, and an additive treatment.

China: This US federal government support for producing semiconductor chips in the United States will help the United States be less dependent on other countries like China.

Jobs: This US federal government support for producing semiconductor chips in the United States will create thousands of American jobs.

China + Jobs: This US federal government support [will help the United States be less dependent on other countries like China] and [will create thousands of American jobs].

Respondents were then asked, “How much do you support or oppose the US federal government enacting these types of policies?” on a 5-point scale, with “don’t know” as a sixth option. The full question wording is presented in Appendix B.

We want to highlight a few design choices. First, we do not mention the CHIPS Act by name, as whether or not the respondent knows the law by name is irrelevant. We also want to prime only a specific element of the legislation to reduce the potential for confounders, so we focus on semiconductor chips manufacturing. In his 2024 Rose Garden speech, quoted above, Biden mentioned semiconductors by name, which increases the realism of the design.

Results

Table 1 provides descriptive statistics of results. Rows indicate the respondent’s level of support for “these types of policies.” Columns separate respondents in the control and treatment groups. Descriptively, we find that framing semiconductor policy as decreasing dependence on China has a major impact on policy support: “strongly support” is 24.67% in the control group but 41.47% in the China treatment group. Additionally, Table 1 excludes the 12.8% of respondents who answered “don’t know.” That a meaningful amount of respondents answer “don’t know” is consistent with the complexity and nuance around industrial policy (Rickard and Milner 2023). We do not have a theoretical prior about these respondents, so we drop them from the estimation sample. Including them does not substantively alter any of these inferences.⁵

[Table 1 about here]

We use ordered logit (OL) regression analysis to estimate causal impacts of the treatments. The ordinal regression exploits the ordering implied in the 5-point response to estimate the overall effect of the treatment. Specifically, let the dependent variable $Y_i = m$. An OL model estimates $m-1$ logit models with free intercepts τ_m (“cutoffs”) and a constant coefficient β (“parallel lines” assumption). Denote by T1 the indicator for Treatment 1 (China). The logit model for category m , say $m = \text{“Strong Support”}$ (5) is the logistic model $\tau_5 + \beta T1$. Observation i is classified as a binary variable equal to 1 if $Y_i \geq 5$ and equal to 0 if $Y_i < 5$. Similarly, for $Y_i = \text{“Some Support”}$ (4), a logit model is used to estimate $\tau_4 + \beta T1$. And so on.

⁵ Results available upon request.

The intercept τ_m varies across m , defining predictive “cutoffs” for category m , and the average treatment effect β is constant across categories. Thus, the sample yields estimates of $m-1$ cutoffs plus the coefficient β . Importantly, we have propensity scores for each respondent, whose inverse is used to weight the OL regression for unbiased average population treatment effects.

Given randomization, we first reports results with no control variables. We then include a slate of respondent characteristics that could reasonably be associated with the outcome variable, such that by including them we can avoid issues with potential imbalance or issues with randomization. We deliberately choose characteristic variables rather than opinion answers, to avoid issues of potential post-treatment bias or the problem of regressing opinions on opinions. On demographics we include gender, race, education, and birth year. Additionally, we control for whether the respondent is in a union; an urban resident; employed; a homeowner; or a parent of a child under 18.

Table 2 reports average treatment for treated (ATT) effects of the three treatments. In the first model in Table 2, with no control variables and in the full sample, we see that including the China treatment raises the log odds ($=\log(p/(1-p))$ where p is the probability that $Y_i \geq m$) of expressing greater support for semiconductor policy, relative to the excluded control group. Interpreted more intuitively as odds ratios, the China treatment increases the odds of greater support for the semiconductor policy by 2.06 times ($e^{0.720}$). The Jobs treatment effect is also positive and significant, though of smaller magnitude than the China treatment effect. The additive treatment combining China and Jobs is significant, with the largest effect, increasing the odds of greater support by 2.87 times. Controlling for respondent characteristics, in the second column, does not appreciably change any of the three treatment effects, which is what we would expect if treatment were randomized.

[Table 2 about here]

Table 2 Models 3, 4, and 5 consider whether treatment effects are consistent across self-identified Democratic, Republican, and Independent subsamples. The results show that the China treatment is significant and positive for Republicans and Independents, whereas the China treatment coefficient is positive but not significant in the Democratic subsample. These results constitute our core findings: the China treatment increases Republican support for a bipartisan but nonetheless a Biden administration industrial policy by 3.49 times. For Independents, the effect increases support by 2.49 times. These effects suggest that anti-China rationales are useful in generating cross-partisan support.

At the bottom of Table 2 are tests for differences in treatment effects, reiterating the main findings above. For Democrats, reducing China dependence raises support for semiconductor policy by as much as does job creation (the difference is statistically insignificant). Republicans, on the other hand, care singularly and passionately about the potential of semiconductor policy to lower dependence on China. For Republicans, reducing China dependence raises support for policy by 1.93 times ($e^{0.660}$) as much as job creation does.

Conclusion

Focusing on the Biden-era landmark CHIPS Act, we field an original survey experiment to assess how framing legislation as a means to decouple from China affects public support, in conjunction with job creation. We find strong evidence that anti-China justification increases support for semiconductor policy, particularly among Republican respondents, which is notable in the deeply polarized Biden era. Interestingly, the anti-China justification augments a job creation framing, suggesting that emphasizing multiple motives behind industrial policy is likely a productive strategy.

Our results highlight the potential effectiveness of using economic nationalism to motivate major policy change. Framing policies with anti-China rhetoric or broader economic nationalist themes can be an effective strategy for garnering public support for ambitious bipartisan initiatives. However, this approach may carry long-term costs. Global challenges require cross-national cooperation, which can be undermined by nationalist framing.

Tables

Table 1: Descriptive patterns, semiconductor policy support

	Control	T1 (China)	T2 (Jobs)	T3 (China + Jobs)	Total
1	16	8	10	3	37
Strongly oppose	6.43%	2.92%	3.82%	1.15%	3.53%
2	16	7	5	5	33
Somewhat oppose	6.43%	2.55%	1.91%	1.91%	3.15%
3	59	51	49	26	185
Neither support nor oppose	23.69%	18.61%	18.70%	9.92%	17.67%
4	84	85	96	93	358
Somewhat support	33.73%	31.02%	36.64%	35.50%	34.19%
5	74	123	102	135	434
Strongly support	29.72%	44.89%	38.93%	51.53%	41.45%
Total	249	274	262	262	1047

Notes: Respondents answering “don’t know” are excluded from the sample.

Table 2. Results: Framing semiconductor policy as reducing dependence on China significantly increases support, alone and in combination with the jobs treatment, and especially for non-Democrats.

	1	2	3	4	5
	Full sample	Full sample	DEM sample	REP sample	IND sample
β_1 (ATT1)	0.720***	0.779***	0.285	1.250***	0.911**
China	(0.217)	(0.204)	(0.363)	(0.311)	(0.394)
β_2 (ATT2)	0.595***	0.558***	0.461**	0.590**	0.949*
Jobs	(0.158)	(0.140)	(0.191)	(0.283)	(0.486)
β_3 (ATT3)	1.053***	1.091***	0.960***	1.448***	1.298***
China + Jobs	(0.200)	(0.194)	(0.269)	(0.284)	(0.433)
Female		-0.269**	-0.587***	0.027	-0.465*
		(0.114)	(0.206)	(0.198)	(0.263)
Race		0.003	0.024	-0.050	0.130*
			(0.040)	(0.075)	(0.084)
Education		0.135***	0.147*	0.068	0.214**
			(0.043)	(0.089)	(0.082)
Birth Year		-0.006	-0.023**	-0.002	0.003
		(0.004)	(0.009)	(0.008)	(0.009)
Unionized		-0.227***	-0.318**	-0.146	-0.128
		(0.077)	(0.146)	(0.186)	(0.205)
Urban		-0.045	0.194	-0.244	-0.045
		(0.090)	(0.132)	(0.185)	(0.193)
Employed		0.079***	0.001	0.117*	0.131**
		(0.029)	(0.035)	(0.062)	(0.055)
Homeowner		-0.110	-0.110	0.030	-0.412
		(0.131)	(0.193)	(0.318)	(0.272)
Have Child under 18		0.147	0.294	0.021	0.008
		(0.218)	(0.417)	(0.279)	(0.351)
Party affiliation		-0.290***			
1=DEM, 2=REP, 3=INDEP		(0.047)			
N	1,047	1,047	383	323	266
Model χ^2	29.34	175.3	68.45	55.46	47.84
$\beta_1 - \beta_2$	0.126	0.221	-0.176	0.660**	-0.038
p-value	0.454	0.208	0.580	0.025	0.910
$\beta_1 - \beta_3$	-0.333*	-0.312*	-0.675**	-0.198	-0.387
p-value	0.061	0.092	0.031	0.503	0.270
$\beta_2 - \beta_3$	-0.458***	-0.533***	-0.499**	-0.858***	-0.349
p-value	0.009	0.001	0.044	0.006	0.284

Notes: Dependent variable is 5-point response for support for semiconductor policy. Ordered logit estimations. Standard errors clustered by state of residence in parentheses. Statistical significance: *** 0.01, ** 0.05, * 0.10. Inverse propensity score weighted results reported. Control variables are binary except Race (1=White 2=Black 3=Hispanic 4=Asian, 5=Native American) and Education (1-No HS 2=High School 3=Some College 4=2-yr 5=4-yr+).

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Appendix A: Solar Support Experiment

In 2022, the *US Inflation Reduction Act (IRA)* was passed along partisan lines, and its industrial policy elements focused on promoting the green transition. In many ways, the IRA was a more sweeping piece of legislation than the CHIPS Act. It combines both industrial policy and environmental goals. In particular, the IRA includes consumer subsidies for products ranging from electric vehicles to energy-efficient heat pumps, production subsidies for activities such as automobile and hydrogen production, and tax credits for renewable energy development. Some regulatory measures, such as methane regulations, were also included in the bill, along with numerous programs designed to support energy communities and green initiatives. The IRA includes several provisions around renewable energy, including solar panel manufacturing and solar energy generation.

Here, we present results of parallel survey experiments examining public support for solar panel manufacturing.⁶ All respondents read: “The United States Congress has passed legislation encouraging investment in the renewable energy industry, especially solar panel manufacturing.” The China and Jobs treatments are parallel. We also add a third Climate treatment and expand the additive treatment to take it into account.

China: This US federal government support for producing solar panels in the United States will help the United States be less dependent on other countries like China.

Jobs: This US federal government support for producing solar panels in the United States will create thousands of American jobs.

Climate: This US federal government support for producing solar panels in the United States will help the United States address climate change.

China + Jobs + Climate: This US federal government support for producing solar panels in the United States [will help the United States be less dependent on other countries like China], [will create thousands of American jobs], and [will help the United States address climate change].

Support of solar panel manufacturing policy is a study in contrast with semiconductor policy. Descriptive data in Table A1 does not show any evidence that the treatments move citizens towards greater support for solar panel policy. If opinions about the importance of solar panels—interrelated with beliefs over the validity and causes of climate change itself—are immutable, we would expect the distribution of responses in the control group (Table A1, first column) to hold steady across treatments. This, in fact, seems to be the case. Neither the ability of the policy to reduce China dependence, nor its job-creating potential, nor its ability to slow climate change alters the distribution of responses. Ordered logit results in Table A2, when broken down by party affiliation to examine potential heterogeneous effects, do not show any statistically significant treatment effects.

⁶ The order of semiconductor and solar panel question blocs was randomized.

[Table A1 about here]

[Table A2 about here]

Why do we find major treatment effects for semiconductor policy but not for solar panel policy? Given that the CHIPS Act was enacted with bipartisan support whereas the Inflation Reduction Act was passed strictly along party lines, public opinion on semiconductor policy may be more mutable than that over solar panels. In the contemporary United States, renewable energy policy—at the national, state, and local levels—has become increasingly partisan (Kennedy et al., 2023). Thus, this may be even a least-likely policy area in which preexisting preferences are moveable.

Table A1: Descriptive patterns, solar panel policy support

	Control	T1 (China)	T2 (Jobs)	T3 (Climate)	T4 (China + Jobs + Climate)	Total
1 Strongly oppose	24 11.88%	22 10.68%	20 9.39%	33 15.21%	23 11.00%	122 11.65
2 Somewhat oppose	14 6.93%	14 6.80%	11 5.16%	18 8.29%	15 7.18%	72 6.88
3 Neither support nor oppose	35 17.33%	29 14.08%	43 20.19%	34 15.67%	41 19.62%	182 17.38
4 Somewhat support	49 24.26%	53 25.73%	57 26.76%	63 29.03%	49 23.44%	271 25.88
5 Strongly support	80 39.60%	88 42.72%	82 38.50%	69 31.80%	81 38.76%	400 38.20
Total	202	206	213	217	209	1047

Notes: Respondents answering “don’t know” are excluded from the sample.

Table A2. Results: Framing solar panel policy as reducing dependence on China, generating jobs, fighting climate change, or all treatments combined have no effects relative to the control group, in any sample.

	1	2	3	4	5
	Full sample	Full sample	DEM sample	REP sample	IND sample
β_1 (ATT1)	0.149	0.154	-0.221	0.651*	-0.270
China	(0.222)	(0.236)	(0.309)	(0.362)	(0.463)
β_2 (ATT2)	-0.011	-0.102	-0.155	-0.115	-0.465
Jobs	(0.174)	(0.185)	(0.321)	(0.272)	(0.371)
β_3 (ATT3)	-0.335*	-0.424**	-0.399	-0.312	-0.344
Climate	(0.177)	(0.184)	(0.319)	(0.226)	(0.449)
β_4 (ATT4)	-0.019	-0.052	-0.134	0.268	-0.528
China + Jobs + Climate	(0.177)	(0.181)	(0.342)	(0.279)	(0.401)
Female		0.190	-0.192	0.202	0.034
		(0.125)	(0.192)	(0.269)	(0.229)
Race		0.031	-0.043	0.026	0.148**
		(0.041)	(0.082)	(0.069)	(0.075)
Education		0.125***	0.286***	-0.007	0.008
		(0.038)	(0.066)	(0.087)	(0.073)
Birth Year		0.011***	-0.022***	0.023***	0.011
		(0.004)	(0.008)	(0.009)	(0.009)
Unionized		-0.003	0.043	-0.038	0.066
		(0.068)	(0.118)	(0.149)	(0.173)
Urban		-0.197**	0.329**	-0.314*	-0.291
		(0.081)	(0.139)	(0.171)	(0.187)
Employed		0.028	0.010	0.017	0.034
		(0.029)	(0.043)	(0.057)	(0.047)
Homeowner		0.305***	0.060	0.744***	-0.105
		(0.115)	(0.160)	(0.260)	(0.293)
Have Child under 18		-0.062	0.516	-0.498**	-0.291
		(0.161)	(0.341)	(0.206)	(0.339)
Party affiliation		-0.320***			
1=DEM, 2=REP, 3=INDEP		(0.050)			
<i>N</i>	1,047	1,047	383	323	266
Model χ^2	6.707	176.4	127.5	180.2	51.10

Notes: Dependent variable is 5-point response for support for semiconductor policy. Ordered logit estimations. Standard errors clustered by state of residence in parentheses. Statistical significance: *** 0.01, ** 0.05, * 0.10. Inverse propensity score weighted results reported.